

Physics 101: Mechanics

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Contents

Chapter 1

The Distance Formula

$$x = (-b + -\sqrt{b^2 - 4ac})/(2a)$$

Chapter 2

Coordinate Geometry

2.1 Introduction

Coordinate geometry, also known as analytic geometry, is the study of geometry using a coordinate system. This contrasts with synthetic geometry.

2.2 The Cartesian Plane

The Cartesian plane is defined by two perpendicular number lines: the x-axis, which is horizontal, and the y-axis, which is vertical.

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Chapter 5

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header: align(right, text(fill: gray.darken(20footer: context [ let pagenumber =
counter(page).display()lettotalpages = counter(page).final().first()align(center, text(size :
10pt)[Pagepagenumberoftotalpages]))settext(size : 11pt)setpar(justify : true, leading :
0.65em)
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// — Native Diagram Draw Functions —
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let diagram-right-triangle() = block( width: 100context [ place(dx: 40poly-
gon(fill: blue.lighten(80// Right angle indicator box place(dx: 0pt, dy: 70pt, rect(width:
10pt, height: 10pt, stroke: 1pt + blue.darken(20// Labels carefully adjusted rela-
tive to triangle vertices place(dx: -15pt, dy: 35pt)[a] place(dx: 55pt, dy: 85pt)[b]
place(dx: 60pt, dy: 25pt)[c] ] ] )
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let diagram-area-proof() = block( width: 100context [ place(dx: 45// Central
Right Triangle polygon(fill: blue.lighten(90// Square on side a (left) place(dx: -
40pt, dy: 0pt, rect(width: 40pt, height: 40pt, fill: red.lighten(85place(dx: -28pt,
dy: 12pt)[a2] // Square on side b (bottom) place(dx: 0pt, dy: 40pt, rect(width:
50pt, height: 50pt, fill: green.lighten(85place(dx: 18pt, dy: 52pt)[b2] // Square
on hypotenuse c (tilted upward safely) place(dx: 0pt, dy: 0pt, polygon(fill: pur-
ple.lighten(85place(dx: 38pt, dy: -12pt)[c2] ] ] )
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let diagram-algebraic-proof() = block( width: 100context [ place(dx: 40// Large
Outer Square (side a + b = 100pt) rect(width: 100pt, height: 100pt, stroke: 1pt +
black) // Inner Tilted Square (c2)polygon(fill : yellow.lighten(85// Labelsshiftedcleanlysothe
10pt, dy : -18pt)[a]place(dx : 60pt, dy : -18pt)[b]place(dx : 42pt, dy : 42pt)[c2] ] ] )
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let diagram-coordinate-distance() = block( width: 100context [ place(dx: 30//
Axes line(start: (-10pt, 100pt), end: (160pt, 100pt), stroke: 1pt + gray.darken(40line(start:
(10pt, -10pt), end: (10pt, 115pt), stroke: 1pt + gray.darken(40// Triangle repre-
senting distance polygon(fill: blue.lighten(85// Text coordinates carefully pushed
inside boundaries place(dx: 15pt, dy: 75pt)[P1] place(dx: 128pt, dy: 20pt)[P2]
place(dx: 72pt, dy: 40pt)[d] place(dx: 72pt, dy: 85pt)[Deltax] place(dx: 128pt, dy:
50pt)[Deltay] ] ] )
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= The Geometry of Space: Pythagoras Theorem *Author:* Dr. Nova *Date:*
July 2026
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== 1. Introduction The Pythagorean theorem is one of the most fundamental principles in Euclidean geometry. It establishes a strict geometric relationship between the three sides of a right-angled triangle. Named after the ancient Greek mathematician Pythagoras, the theorem states that the square of the hypotenuse (the side opposite the right angle) is equal to the sum of the squares of the other two sides.

Mathematically, if a and b represent the lengths of the legs perpendicular to one another, and c represents the length of the hypotenuse, the relation is expressed as:

$$a^2 + b^2 = c^2$$

v(0.5em) figure(diagram-right-triangle(), caption: [The standard configuration of a right triangle showing the orthogonal legs and the hypotenuse.]) v(0.5em)

== 2. Geometric Interpretation Beyond simple algebra, the theorem describes an equivalence of areas. If we construct literal squares on each side of the right triangle, the total area of the two smaller squares will exactly equal the area of the largest square resting on the hypotenuse.

This visualization helps bridge the gap between algebraic expressions and spatial reality, demonstrating that a^2 and b^2 are physical surfaces being combined into c^2 .

v(0.5em) figure(diagram-area-proof(), caption: [Visualizing the theorem as a sum of physical areas ("Area"_a + "Area"_b = "Area"_c).])

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== 3. Classical Algebraic Proof There are hundreds of known proofs for the Pythagorean theorem. One of the most intuitive is the algebraic proof using a large square containing four identical right-angled triangles.

Consider a large square with side length $(a+b)$. Inside this square, four triangles are arranged such that they form a smaller, tilted inner square with side length c .

v(0.5em) figure(diagram-algebraic-proof(), caption: [Geometric arrangement for the algebraic proof.]) v(0.5em)

The total area of the large outer square can be calculated in two distinct ways:

1. As a single large square: $A = (a+b)^2$ 2. As the sum of the four internal triangles and the inner square: $A = 4 \times (1/2ab) + c^2$

Equating the two expressions yields the following algebraic breakdown:

$$(a+b)^2 = 4(1/2ab) + c^2 \quad a^2 + 2ab + b^2 = 2ab + c^2$$

Subtracting $2ab$ from both sides structurally validates our primary thesis:

$$a^2 + b^2 = c^2$$

== 4. Coordinate System Applications and Vector Space In Cartesian coordinates, the theorem forms the bedrock of the distance formula. For any two points $P_1(x_1, y_1)$ and $P_2(x_2, y_2)$, the absolute distance d is treated as a hypotenuse derived from the horizontal change Δx and vertical change Δy .

$$d = \sqrt{(x_2 - x_1)^2 + (y_2 - y_1)^2}$$

v(0.5em) figure(diagram-coordinate-distance(), caption: [Projecting Euclidean distance as a right triangle over coordinate axes.]) v(0.5em)

This principle scales effortlessly into three dimensions ($d = \sqrt{\Delta x^2 + \Delta y^2 + \Delta z^2}$) and generalized Hilbert vector spaces, underscoring its immense value to modern physics and mechanical engineering.

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